

Data and Analyses of Voting in the UN General Assembly

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Abstract

Roll-call voting in the United Nations General Assembly (UNGA) has long attracted the attention of scholars; first to study the formation of voting blocs in the UNGA and more recently to create indicators for the common interests of states. This chapter discusses the data and the various choices scholars have to make when using these data for both these purposes. The chapter points out various common errors, such as confusing abstentions and absentee votes, and discusses appropriate methodologies for estimating state preferences from observed vote choices.

I argue that studies that use UN voting data to measure common interests pay insufficient attention to the content of UN votes and show how ignoring (changes in) the UN's agenda and dimensions of contestation can lead to serious biases. The chapter reviews characteristics of available data and gives a bird's eye view of the history of UN voting.

I. Introduction

Voting in the United Nations General Assembly (UNGA) has attracted scholarly attention right from the UN's inception. Renowned scholars such as Hayward Alker, Robert Keohane, Arend Lijphart, John Mueller, and Bruce Russett made their early marks with analyses of UN voting. These early studies viewed the UNGA as an arena in which broader patterns of behavior in world politics could be observed. Inspired by the behavioral revolution and methodological advances in the study of roll-call voting, these studies sought to identify voting blocs and dimensions of contestation in world politics.

In the 1970s this research program came under fire from scholars who argued that it was methodologically rather than conceptually driven and that it provided little justification for focusing on the UNGA as a microcosm for world politics (Keohane 1969; Alger 1970; Riggs et al 1970; Dixon 1981). Robert Keohane accused studies of UN politics of suffering from the "Mount Everest syndrome:" that the UN is studied because it is there without asking relevant and important theoretical questions. Arguably, the UN also had become a less significant venue by the 1970s and suffered from what Ernst Haas (1982) called "regime decay."

Consequentially, the study of the UN was put on the backburner. A good indicator is the number of articles published in the primary sub-disciplinary journal, *International Organization (IO)*, as well as the primary journal for the entire discipline, the *American Political Science Review (APSR)*. Riggs et al. (1970) counted 247 articles in *IO*, and 16 in *APSR* from 1950 to 1969 whose main topic was an investigation of some aspect of the UN. In the 1970s, 32 articles on the UN appeared in *IO* and 4 in the *APSR*. Between 1980 and 2000 only 8 articles that explicitly investigated the UN were published in *IO* whereas the *APSR* had not published an

article with the UN as a main topic of investigation since 1976, until Doyle and Sambanis (2000) study of the effect of peacekeeping operations.

The 2000s saw a returned interest in the UN, especially its peacekeeping functions and the Security Council. This did not lead to renewed attention for UNGA voting patterns, aside from a few exceptions (Kim and Russett 1996; Voeten 2000). Yet UNGA voting data began to be used for an entirely different purpose: to construct indicators of similarity in “state preferences.” Since 1998, there have been over 50 published studies that use an indicator based on UN votes as a dependent variable and more commonly as an independent variable. Scholars have used these indicators to examine the impact of shared interests on the likelihood of inter-state disputes (e.g. Gartzke 1998), the distribution of foreign aid (e.g. Alesina and Dollar 2000), and the lending behavior of the World Bank and IMF (Thacker 1999). Others used UN votes as dependent variables to answer research questions such as whether socialization through IGOs leads to convergence in member state interests (Bearce and Bondanella 2007), whether the EU has started to form a cohesive foreign policy (Drieskens 2010), whether the U.S. is starting to get increasingly isolated on foreign policy issues on which it has lobbied (Voeten 2004), and whether and how U.S. or Chinese foreign aid or trade successfully buys foreign policy adherence (Flores-Macias and Kreps 2012).

This chapter reviews the usage of UN voting data for both purposes: analyses of voting blocs and the construction of indicators of the common interests of states. I argue that studies that use UN voting data to measure common interests pay insufficient attention to the content of UN votes and use inadequate methods to construct indicators of interest similarity. I show how ignoring (changes in) the UN’s agenda and dimensions of contestation can lead to serious biases.

Before delving into substantive applications, I briefly describe the existing data, which now ranges from 1946 to 2011.

II. Description of UN Voting Data

The most recent UN voting data set was assembled by Anton Strezhnev and Erik Voeten (2012) but it contains data collected by many scholars. The first source is the ICPSR's *United Nations Roll Call Data, 1946-1985* dataset, which is itself a collection of various data gathering efforts. The Strezhnev-Voeten data set uses only non-unanimous plenary votes, although the ICPSR data also includes information about Committee votes for the first 29 sessions (but not thereafter). The Strezhnev-Voeten data includes votes from emergency special sessions, such as on Hungary or the Suez Canal crisis.

The data after 1985 comes from various updates from: Soo Yeon Kim and Bruce Russett (1996), Erik Gartzke and Dong-Joon Jo (2002), Erik Voeten (2000) up to the latest release from Strezhnev and Voeten (2012). Unfortunately, these newer data do not include failed votes on resolutions nor do they include votes on paragraphs and amendments. Such votes have become somewhat rare in the modern UN era¹ but they do occur and can be quite important (with paragraph votes the most common). Unfortunately, records of these votes are also more difficult to locate. An update is being prepared to include such votes but this data is not yet available at the time of writing.

The Strezhnev-Voeten data include 5140 votes in 65 UNGA sessions. States are recorded as either voting 'yes,' 'abstain,' or 'no.' The predominant view in the literature is that these choices should be treated as ordinal in that a 'no' vote is a stronger signal of disapproval than an abstention. States can also be absent from the UNGA. Unfortunately, many studies confuse

¹ For example, the last session for which we have this data included 0 amendments, 0 failed votes, and 1 paragraph vote.

absences and abstentions, suggesting that absences are indications of disapproval with a resolution. A more realistic interpretation is that most absences have other causes, such as government turnovers that lead states to temporarily have no UN delegation. Indeed, in 68% of cases where a state is absent it will also be absent on the next roll-call on the agenda. This is inconsistent with a view that absences are generally protests against specific resolutions.² Confusing absences with abstentions could lead to serious biases given that absences are common (9% of observations, compared to 12% abstentions and 7% no votes) and correlated to structural factors such as civil wars or coups that could influence outcomes of interests.

The data also includes information on the content of votes. First, the data identify those votes that the U.S. lobbied on, as identified by the U.S. State Department publications “Voting Practices in the United Nations.” Second, issue codes were assigned based on searches of the descriptions of resolutions.

FIGURE 1 ABOUT HERE

Figure 1 shows the distribution of issue areas across time. Time is based on sessions, which usually run from September to December but occasionally stretch into the following year. 1964 was missing because there were no votes over a dispute concerning the admission of Communist China.

There are a couple of striking patterns. First, Middle East issues have replaced colonialism issues as the most dominant agenda item (although human rights issues challenge this predominance in recent years). Often, about one third of contentious UNGA votes concerns the Middle East, which really means the Israel-Palestine conflict. The dominance of colonialism issues is even stronger in some years. This should be taken into consideration when evaluating indicators based on UN votes.

² By comparison, 23% of abstentions are followed by another abstention.

Second, especially in the first thirty years there are large annual shifts in the content of the agenda. Thus voting coincidence between countries could rise or fall simply because the agenda changes; without any change in state interests. Ignoring this issue in time series applications could lead to biased inferences as these changes in the agenda could be endogenous to outcomes. For example, violent conflicts tend to attract UN resolutions. If changes in v

III. Voting Patterns in the UNGA

The study of UN roll-call voting flourished in the 1950s and 1960s. The earliest study is Ball's (1951) study of bloc voting within pre-determined groups. Other influential studies are Lijphart (1963), Alker (1964), Alker and Russett (1965), Russett (1966), Mueller (1967), and Newcombe, Ross and Newcombe (1970). Riggs et al. (1970) give an overview of this early literature.

FIGURE 2 ABOUT HERE

Figures 2a and 2b plots ideal points derived from states' UNGA vote choices from 1946-1969 and 1970-1985 respectively. These ideal points are estimated using W-NOMINATE (Poole and Rosenthal 1997; see also Voeten 2000). Each resolution (not plotted) can be represented by a cutting line, where the model expects countries on each side of the line to vote with each other. The plots assume that countries have static ideal points in a policy space that has a consistent meaning within the time period. This assumption is not always realistic. Yet the plots provide a useful vehicle to explain the historical evolution of contestation in the UNGA. I highlight points of departure from the static assumptions in the narrative.³ Nevertheless, the static models accurately explain over 90% of actual vote choices in each period.

In figure 2A, the dominant dimension of UN voting separates the Soviet Bloc from the U.S and the Western European states. This conflict already took shape in the first UN sessions. The Soviet Bloc was isolated in the early days and almost always lost on Cold War issues (Rowe

³ The narrative draws on much more detailed analysis in Voeten (2001).

1969). Colonialism issues and South Africa occasionally caused rifts between the U.S. and its Western allies. Consequentially, the colonial powers rather than the U.S. occupy the most extreme Western position during this period.

During the first five years there was an important orthogonal dimension of contestation concerning the issue of Palestine. Arab and most Asian countries opposed partition while the West and East stood united in favor of partition, although this unity proved to be short-lived. After Stalin's death, the U.S.S.R. started courting non-aligned states and generally voted with the Arab states. The Middle East issue thus became part of the first dimension. Nevertheless, the superpowers were still united on some North-South issues, such as their opposition to making the UN a more supranationalist institution over which the superpowers would have less control.

The early 1950s constituted a period in which the U.S. actively and successfully used the UN for its foreign policy purposes. The multilateral authorization of the Korea intervention force and the 1950 "Uniting for Peace" Resolution that temporarily caused the UNGA to surpass the deadlocked Security Council as the most important political institution in the UN led even realists like Hans Morgenthau (1954) to hail the "new" United Nations (UN) as a useful mechanism through which the U.S. could achieve its national objectives by multilateral means. Initially the Americans did not expect the end of the impasse over the admissions of new members to change this. After all, the U.S. sponsored the admission of eleven of the new members admitted in 1955, whereas the U.S.S.R. sponsored only four.

Yet, the introduction of new member states increased demands to deal with the issue of colonialism. The U.S.S.R. started to aggressively pursue the allegiance of the former colonies. This challenged the U.S. to choose between these newer states and their most important allies, the "Old Europeans," against whom the many anti-colonialism resolutions were targeted. In the

mid 1950s the U.S. position was further removed from its European allies than in any other period. Following the Western divisions during the Suez crisis and the failure of the UN to act against the Soviet invasion of Hungary (despite a resolution condemning it), many realists believed the compromises required for acting through the UN had become too costly in comparison to the benefits of multilateralism (e.g. Morgenthau (1956), Hoffmann (1957)). Consequently, the U.S. increasingly voted with the Europeans on colonial issues from 1957 until President Kennedy took office in 1961.

1960 was a milestone year for the UN. Seventeen new nations joined the organization, the UN embarked on a major peacekeeping mission to suppress the civil strife after the independence of the Congo, and the UNGA adopted the landmark *Declaration on the Granting of Independence to Colonial Countries and Peoples*. Soviet leader Nikita Khrushchev thought the 1960 UNGA Plenary meeting so important that he and all Soviet bloc leaders traveled by boat across the Atlantic to attend the meetings themselves (they stayed for four weeks). The big prize was the allegiance of former colonies. Most African states initially adopted a centrist position on the East-West conflict. Their internal divisions were along lines of colonial heritage. The former French colonies, assembled in the "Brazzaville caucus," were clearly distinct from the former British and other colonies (the countries on the bottom of Figure 2A). Most of the divisions between these groups were on issues that pertained to African affairs, in particular the conflicts in the Congo and the partitioning of Rwanda and Burundi.

Many of the conflicts that divided countries in the 1960s had by now become familiar. The issue of the representation of Communist China, for instance, continued to divide states along East-West lines, with majorities against Beijing ranging from as large as 16 in 1963 to an evenly split vote in 1965 (Boyd 1971). The issue would not be resolved until 1971 when Beijing

finally replaced Taipei as the official representation of China. The conflict in the Middle East now separated states primarily along East-West lines. The six-day war in 1967 and the resulting controversies made it the principal source of conflict in the late 1960s. There was still discord over the Congo, Korea and other Cold War issues. Non-aligned countries were divided on these issues (Van Staden and Stokman 1970). The Soviet Bloc and the West persisted to vote together against the South on issues related to UN supranationalism, budget issues and certain questions of self-determination.

By 1970 a majority of UN members were not independent states at the UN's inception. States with only 10% of the world's population and contributing only 5% of the assessed UN budget could theoretically muster a two-third majority in the UNGA. These developments made the UNGA a more difficult instrument for statecraft for both superpowers. Neither superpower could count on reliable majorities, let alone the kind of supermajorities necessary to authorize peacekeeping missions through the Uniting for Peace Resolution. Consequently, there was virtually no UN involvement in Vietnam, Afghanistan and other major conflicts in the 1970s and early 1980s.

The 1970s was also the period when developing countries increasingly perceived that to use the UN to their advantage they should emphasize common causes and put more divisive issues to the background. At a conference in Algiers in September 1973, they followed a call by Mexican President Luis Echeverria Alvarez to strive for the creation of a New International Economic Order (NIEO). The goals were to get more favorable terms of trade with developed countries, to receive more aid, to regulate investments of transnational companies, to reschedule debt, and to change international organization such that organizations with equal voting power, such as the UNGA, would have more authority. This essentially created a "third party,"

commonly referred to as the Group of 77 (G-77) or the Non-Aligned Movement (see Iida 1988). Indeed, figure 2B shows three fairly cohesive voting blocs with largely empty space between them. In the literature on U.S. Congress such empty channels are seen as indicative of polarization; in the sense that they are indicative of voting behavior where few cross party lines. The same can be said for this period in the UNGA, which was heavily dominated by “partisan” attempts to set the agenda and maintain cohesion. This may make votes in this period less useful indicators for preferences than in other periods.

To maintain internal unity, the countries belonging to the non-aligned voting bloc successfully ignored a number of divisive issues. For example, although the future of Burundi had divided African nations in the 1960s, when the leading Tutsi minority slaughtered more than 100,000 Hutus in 1973, the issue was mostly ignored in the UN. Nor did Asian countries put much pressure on the UN to address the situation in Uganda where Amin deported virtually everyone of Asian descent in 1975. Moreover, it led to log-rolls that probably undermined the effectiveness of the UN, most importantly the resolution that equated Zionism with racism in 1975. Originally introduced as an amendment to the first UN Declaration on the rights of women, it infuriated the Europeans and especially the Americans who led by ambassador Daniel Patrick Moynihan began a fierce battle to get the resolution rescinded. They did not succeed until the Cold War had ended (1991). Most of the successes of the South in achieving its goals, in particular regarding terms of trade and debt rescheduling, were achieved outside of the framework of the UN (Mingst and Karns 1995). Within the UN, the North-South conflict soon resulted in a stalemate (Doyle 1983).

In 1987, Pravda published an article in which Gorbachev made a strong commitment to the UN, a pledge he repeated in a speech to the UNGA. This unlocked opportunities for a

number of smaller peacekeeping missions and UN-instigated negotiations in contentious conflicts such as Afghanistan, the conflict in Angola and Namibia, El Salvador, and the Iran-Iraq war. In the UNGA, the disintegration of the Soviet voting bloc started in 1989 when some Eastern European states, led by Czechoslovakia, shifted towards the west. The USSR followed in 1991 as Russia. Yet, subtle changes occurred before then (see also figure 4 in the next section). By 1987 the Soviet bloc was no longer furthest removed from the U.S. Instead, this distinction belonged to Algeria, Angola, Cuba, Iraq, Libya, Syria, and Yemen.

FIGURE 3 ABOUT HERE

The post-Cold War ideological structure in the UNGA. A model that assumes that states hold static ideal points along a single dimension explains 94% of vote choices on non-consensus UNGA resolutions in both the 1991-2000 and 2001-2011 periods. This ideological structure contains new elements but also resembles patterns of the Cold War structure. The main exceptions to the stability are the Eastern European states, which switched sides. Russia and the newly independent former Soviet republics now take a position in between the West and the rest of the world. Their position resembles that of states such as Turkey and South Korea. These are all states with strong ties to both the West and the non-Western part of the world (but for different reasons).

Yet, the position of developing countries before the end of the Cold War is a very good predictor of their position since the end of the Cold War (Voeten 2000). The Latin American countries are still closest to the West, followed by a group of African and Asian countries. On the 'non-Western' pole are the remaining communist states Laos, North Korea, Vietnam, China and Cuba. But we also find states such as Afghanistan, Burma, India, Iran, Iraq, Libya, Pakistan, Sudan, and Syria close to the extreme side of the first dimension of conflict. These are not

necessarily prototypical representatives of the countries that were seeking to establish the NIEO in the seventies and eighties. They are states that challenge principles of political liberalism and the dominance of the U.S. This finding lends support for the thesis that a counter-hegemonic bloc is forming among states that do not necessarily share many common interests other than a common aversion of Western hegemony and the principles associated with that. It is this common antipathy that determines vote choices over many global issues.

The liberal-non liberal divide becomes more prominent in the 2000s (figure 3B) when human rights issues become an increasingly prominent feature on the UN's agenda (see figure 1). Whereas the right side of the policy space contained some liberal democracies in the 1990s (e.g. India) it is now completely occupied by repressive dictatorships.

The second dimension mostly consists of conflict over issues that separate the U.S. (and Israel) from its allies. This does not only involve issues directly related to Palestine but also resolutions on which the U.S. has lost support from its European allies and has only Israel and some pacific islands left in support (e.g. the Cuban boycott).

In short, the first dimension of contestation has been quite consistent and has mostly separated the U.S. and its allies from those who oppose them. Nevertheless, there have been important shifts in the UNGA's agenda that occasionally make a second dimension relevant and that alter the content of UN resolutions. Moreover, the UN has been more representative of conflicts elsewhere in some periods than in others, although even in the 1970-1988 period the main dimension of contestation accurately reflects the Cold War conflict.

IV. UN Votes As Indicators for State Preferences

As highlighted in the introduction, current scholarship is not primarily interested in the UNGA per se but uses UNGA votes to calculate the degree to which states have common foreign policy

“interests” or “preferences.” Preferences and interests play an important role in many IR theories but are difficult to operationalize. The use of UN votes for this purpose is not entirely new. For example, Vengroff (1976), Moon (1985), and Hagan (1989) used UN voting data to test Rosenau’s (1966) hypothesis that domestic instability in developing countries leads to shifts in foreign policy preferences. Yet indicators based on UN votes have now become an almost obligatory ingredient in models that explain bilateral and multilateral lending, international conflict, and a host of other outcomes.

There is some justification for this. UN votes have many advantages over alternative sources of data that can serve to construct indicators for state interests. Alliance choices are sticky and reflect the strategic security environment as much (or more) as state preferences. Two geographically distant states with highly similar policy preferences may never close an alliance. Some formal alliances survive even if states become rivals. Other informal alliances are never formalized (e.g. Israel and the U.S.) There is no obvious other source of data where so many states over such a long time period have revealed policy positions on such a wide set of issues. Moreover, as the previous section illustrates, the main dimensions of contestation in the UN are reflective of contestation over global policy issues. This is even true for the 1970-1985 period when the UNGA’s agenda was dominated by issues that were somewhat peripheral to the interests of great powers.

On the other hand, scholars have by and large failed to motivate why an indicator based on UN votes is an appropriate operationalization for their theoretical concept of interest. Most obviously, one should consider what UN votes are about. For example, some of the conflict literature uses UN votes to test the implications of bilateral bargaining models where states have conflicting interests over territory (e.g. Reed et al. 2008). Yet, UN votes concern *global* issues on

which many states with territorial disputes have similar preferences. Iran and Iraq, India and Pakistan, Peru and Ecuador, Eritrea and Ethiopia, and other states with fierce border disputes are quite alike when it comes to UN voting. Thus, the use of UN votes is appropriate only if the relevant theoretical concept of interest concerns global political issues. Unfortunately, most of the literature fails to specify what is meant theoretically with “common foreign policy interests” let alone justify UN votes as the appropriate source of data.

Another crucial issue is the method by which indicators of interests or preferences are computed. The canonical approach is to compute a dyadic measure of similarity of voting patterns. This can be an ordinal measure such as Kendall’s τ_b (Bueno De Mesquita 1975) or a Spearman rank-order correlation coefficient (Gartzke 1998, 2000). Others treat UN votes as interval measures, with abstentions halfway between a yes and a no vote. Such measures include Lijphart’s (1963) index of agreement and Signorino and Ritter’s (1999) S score, which in its most common form is identical to Lijphart’s index of agreement.

These measures suffer from various deficiencies. Dyadic indicators cannot capture the multiple underlying dimensions of UN voting. Votes in the UN are not choices on how much state A likes state B but whether a state approves of a resolution. Conceptually, estimates of preferences should be based on a theory of how states translate preferences into vote choices. The spatial voting model offers such a theory and has been the basis for empirical estimates of preferences in legislatures all over the world for almost three decades (for an overview, see McCarthy, Poole and Rosenthal 2005). Figures 2 and 3 were created using such a method (NOMINATE in this case). There is no good reason why the UNGA should be the only assembly for which the analysis of roll-calls resorts to dyadic similarity indicators popular in the 1960s. Yet, with few exceptions (Voeten 2000, 2004, Reed et al. 2008) that is the state of affairs.

The most important deficiency, however, is the lack of attention for dynamics. Indicators of preference similarity are almost always used in time series cross-sectional analyses (panels). This means that often it is changes in preferences that matter, especially in fixed effects models. Current methods are unable to disentangle the effects of agenda changes from preference changes (see Voeten 2004). While the UNGA's agenda is quite stable with many resolutions repeated each year, multiple votes tend to take place whenever major crises occur. Given that there are only about 80 resolutions a year, multiple resolutions on a specific crisis can strongly bias annual dyadic similarity measures if left unaccounted for. This is obviously problematic if the goal is to explain participation in conflicts but it may also be important for the aid literature as we know that aid responds to the outbreak of (civil) wars. More generally, the agenda shifts identified in the previous section could decrease or increase observed voting similarities between a pair of states even if neither state actually changes its interest.

FIGURE 4 ABOUT HERE

Figure 4 illustrates this point using the U.S. - U.S.S.R/Russia dyad. The dotted line offers the S-score, which is the most widely used indicator of voting similarity. It varies between -1 (no similarity) and 1 (identical voting patterns). There are several reasons why these are implausible estimates for common interests. First, according to S-scores two countries had more similar interests during several periods of the Cold War (mid 1950s and mid 1970s) than during most of the post-Cold War period with the exception of a few years in the early 1990s. It is somewhat absurd to imply that in the 2000s the U.S. and Russia, however acrimonious their relationship can sometimes be, are further apart than the U.S.S.R. and the U.S. were during the Cuban Missile crisis.

Second, S-scores fluctuate considerably from one year to the next. It is questionable whether these reflect real changes in preferences rather than agenda changes. For example, the 6th Plenary session (1951) held about half the votes of sessions before and after. This was mostly due to the dearth of colonialism resolutions, on which the USSR and the US often voted alike in that period. The increased S-scores in the early 1970s was surely due to many NIEO resolutions (discussed in the previous section) on which the USSR and the US often agreed rather than a true change in preferences.

Figure 4 also plots dynamic ideal points estimated by Bailey and Voeten (2012). They use a model that separates agenda change from preference change by fixing identical resolutions that are repeated (see: Voeten 2004). Using this methodology yields estimates with greater face validity. The gap between the ideal points does not fluctuate erratically. The model accurately keeps the two countries much further apart during the Cold War than at any point during the Cold War's aftermath. Yet the ideal points do capture real interest shifts; not just the early 1990s but also Gorbachev's efforts to reconcile with the West in the mid-1980s. An added bonus is that estimates of ideal points allow us to detect whether it is the U.S. or U.S.S.R. that changes positions.

A more detailed discussion of methodology is beyond the scope of this chapter. Nevertheless, figure 4 is by no means a cherry-picked example of what goes wrong in conventional calculations of the common interests of states. Changes in the UN's agenda must be modeled in order to adequately model changes in state preferences.

V. Conclusion

This chapter has reviewed sixty years of analyses that use UNGA voting data. Initially, these analyses were motivated by a desire to understand politics in the UN. The currently literature

shows little interest in the UN but uses voting data to construct indicators of “common state interests.” I have argued that scholars who do this would be wise to think more carefully what these votes are about before choosing to rely on this data. The brief overview of UN voting patterns offered in this chapter may help in this regard. Second, the methodology used to construct indicators of state interests matters greatly. In particular, it is unwise to rely on dyadic indicators of voting similarity, especially for dynamic applications.

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Figure 1: Issue Areas of Contested UNGA Votes 1946-2011

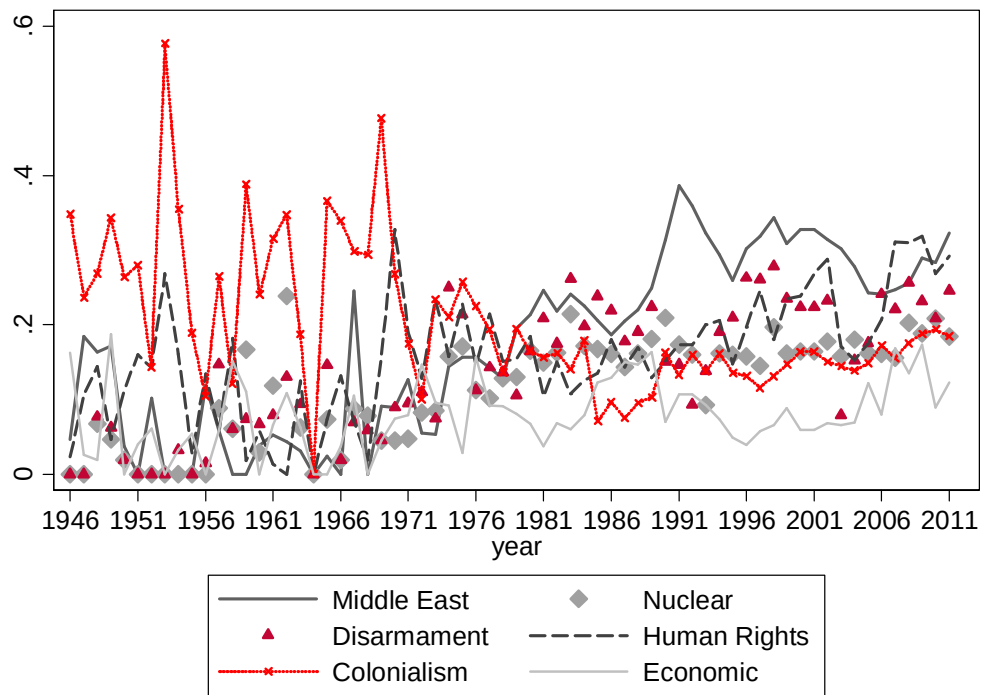


Figure 2: Contestation in the UNGA During The Cold War

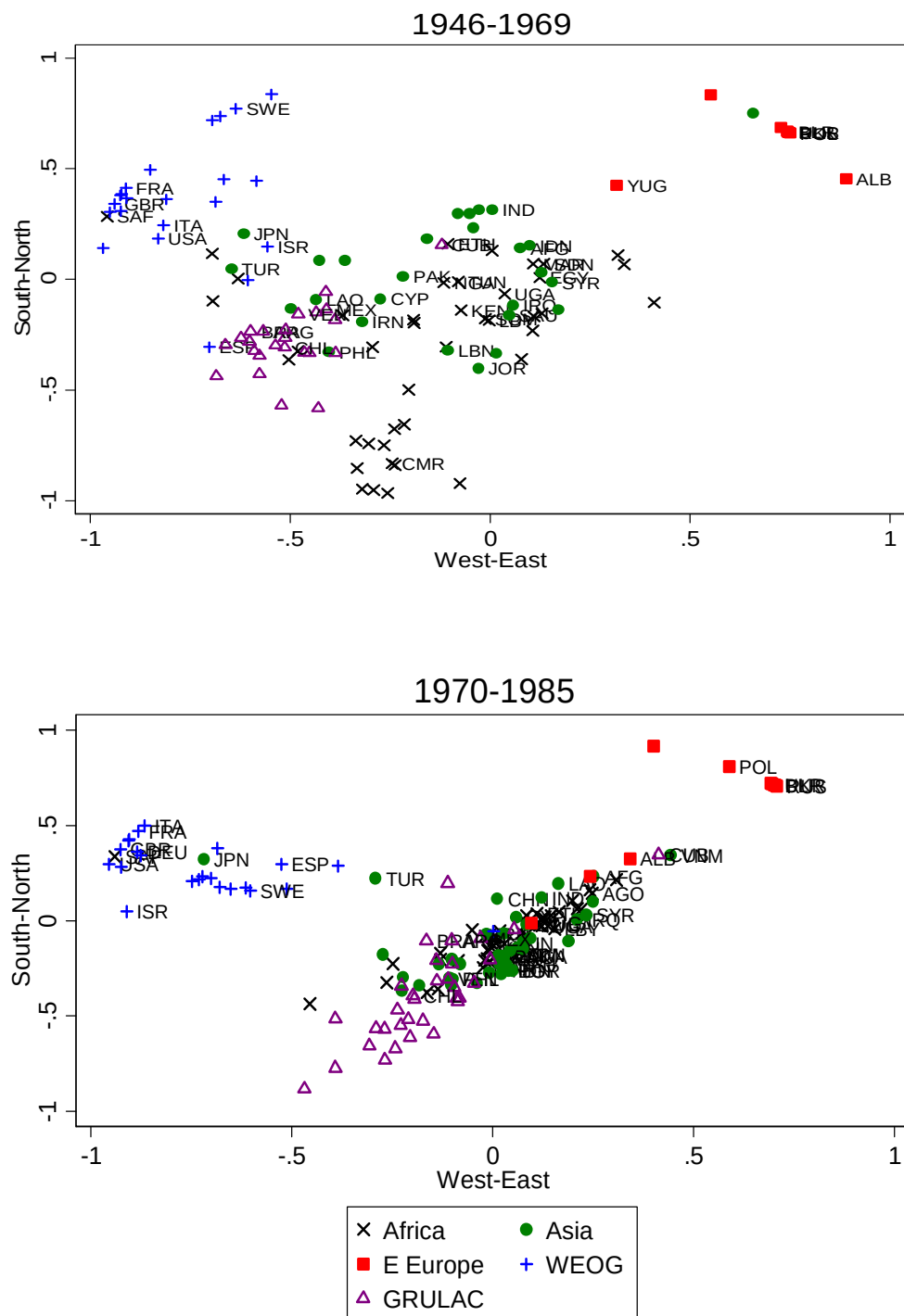


Figure 3: Contestation in the UNGA in the post-Cold War Period

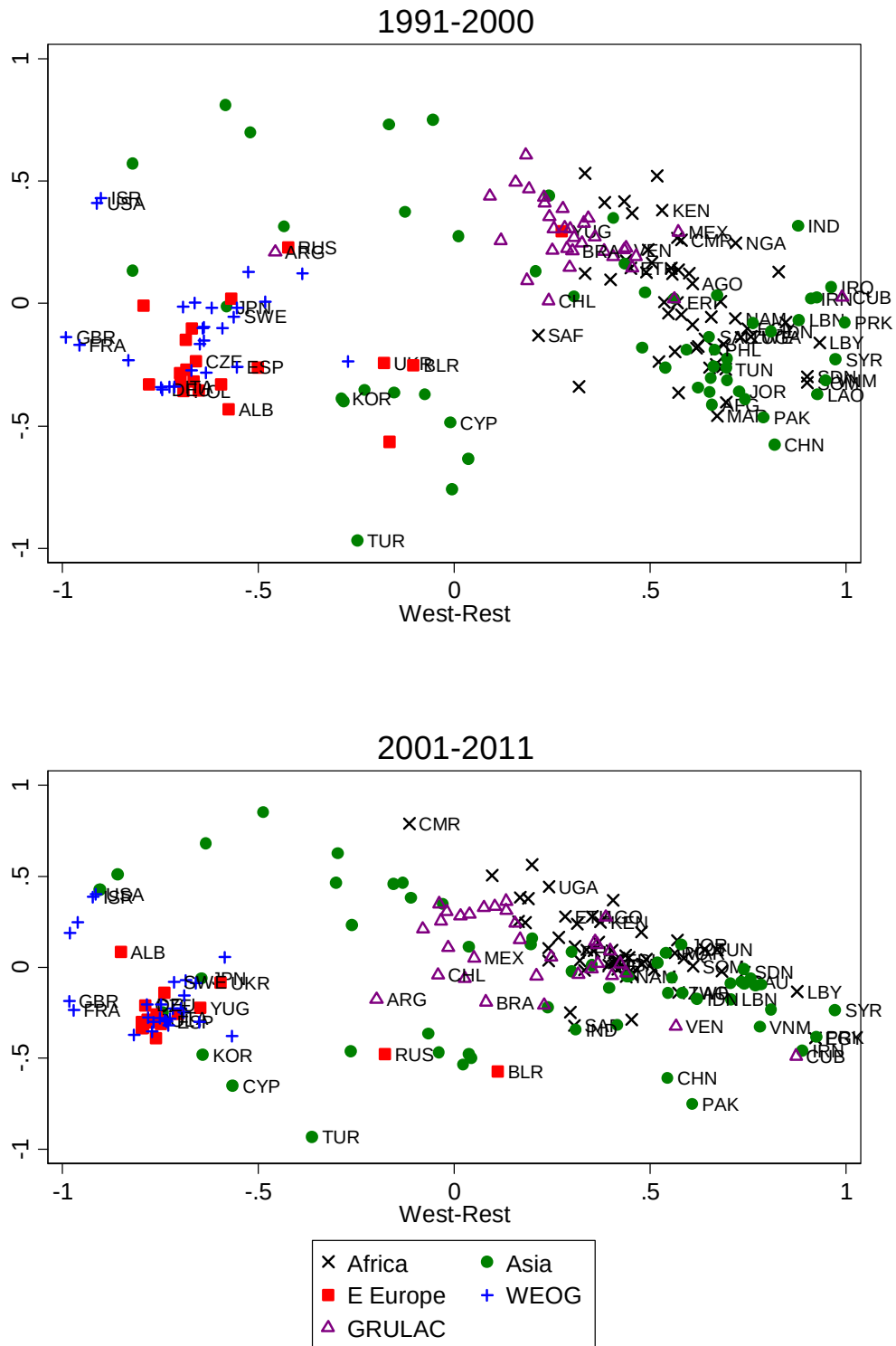


Figure 4: Similarity in Vote Choices USSR and US, S-Scores and Dynamic Ideal Points

